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`EUROPEAN CITIZENSHIP', OR WHERE NEOLIBERALISM MEETS ETHNO-CULTURALISM

Analysing the European Union's citizenship discourse

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ABSTRACT: The overarching objective of this article is to map and analyse the European Union's discourse of `European citizenship' as it has evolved since the early 1970s. It focuses on how this discourse on citizenship unfolds in the matters of social citizenship rights, ethnic relations, immigration, and the interrelated EU project of forming a `European identity'. Through an analysis of mainly European Commission documents, a critical perspective of the definitions and meanings which the EU attaches to `European citizenship' is developed. The article argues that in conjunction with the Community's adoption of a neoliberal-leaning agenda in the 1980s, the EU has been moving towards a de-socialized and increasingly ethno-cultural understanding of citizenship and identity. Through this ethno-cultural articulation, it is argued, `European citizenship' comes to work excluding towards the Union's non-white and non-Christian populations. In widening the scope of the analysis, the final sections discuss the EU's citizenship discourse in the context of other culturalizing discourses on `Europe'; a discussion which also incorporates the issues of immigration and asylum.
Key words: European Union; citizenship; identity; neoliberalism; ethno-culturalism; exclusion; immigration

'We've always had a healthy inferiority complex here about tall, blond people,' said Luigi Spaventa, a former Budget Minister [of Italy]. 'For us, it's the euro or Africa.'[1]

1. Cited in Cohen (1997).

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Introduction

It hardly needs mentioning that citizenship has become a prestige word, even a buzz-word, within EU policy-making. In recent years the references to 'a citizens' Europe', 'European citizenship', 'Community citizens' and the like have been growing at an exponential rate. These terms now surface in a number of different contexts in EU publications, spanning, among others, discussions on architectural heritage restoration, European identity formation, immigration and asylum, tourism, crime, currency policy, language policy and media policy. Indeed, within the new European Commission there are now even plans to create 'a citizens' Europe' Directorate-General, with the aim to 'help associate the EU in the public mind with ''people-friendly'' activities' (*European Voice*, 10-16 June 1999). Yet, as this article will consider, borrowing from Kofman (1995: 122), 'does this mean that the extension of and debate about the renewal of citizenship in Europe will bring advantages to those groups that have been marginalized or excluded from it until now?'

Given the fact that a discussion of citizenship in the affirmative - a campaign to be more precise - at the EU level has been able to thrive in the midst of a growing social exclusion in the Union, this in and of itself may indicate that the EU's current definition of citizenship can do without a strong social element, that the meaning of citizenship as a social medium has been transformed. To put it differently, while large numbers of people in the EU have been thrown into unemployment and social marginalization, these same people have also, and simultaneously with this process, been told that they should take pride in their newly attained status as 'European citizens'.

In this article I shall try to map the European Union's discourse of 'European citizenship' as it has evolved since the early 1970s. More precisely, the purpose is to investigate how this discourse on citizenship unfolds in the matters of social citizenship rights,[2] ethnic relations, immigration, and the interrelated EU project of forming a 'European identity'. Through an examination of mainly European Commission documents, the article develops a critical perspective of those core ingredients, definitions and meanings which the EU attaches to

2. In broad terms this article leans on Marshall's (1950/1992: 8) definition of social citizenship as that which includes 'the whole range from the right to a modicum of economic welfare and security to the right to share to the full in the social heritage and to live the life of a civilized being according to the standards prevailing in the society'. Faist (1995: 16), in his development and reworking of Marshall's central thesis, refers to social citizenship as encapsulating 'the material conditions of the existence of membership and recognition', and as imbued with those rights 'required for a decent standard of living'.

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'European citizenship'. It is my contention that discourses on citizenship merit close scrutiny, since they form part of those ''machineries'' and regimes of representation' (Hall 1988: 27) which articulate, legitimize and thereby construct a community's boundaries of inclusion and exclusion. Although there is a growing body of research focusing on the various legal restraints built in to EU citizenship and how these work excluding towards third country nationals,[3] the task set forth here of going beyond the legal domain to analyse the wider excluding implications of the EU's citizenship discourse has remained relatively unexplored in the scholarly debate.

I will argue that the EU's adoption of a neoliberal agenda - put in place in the 1980s - and the restraints it has imposed on a social vision for the EU project has both forced and enabled EU policy-makers to tap into other sources than those harbouring the traditional social citizenship provisions in order to formulate and envision a citizenship idea for the European Union. Besides neoliberal ideals of the individualized market or consumer citizenship, the EU also articulates an ethno-culturally defined citizenship, founded on the claim that what amalgamates a citizenry is a shared sense of belonging to a historic community endowed with a common civilization, culture and heritage.

The formation of a discourse on citizenship at the level of the European Union

Although 'Citizenship of the Union',[4] or a formal EU citizenship, was not to become part of the Treaty until 1993 - with the ratification of the Maastricht Treaty - the idea of creating such a citizenship for the EEC and subsequently the EC had been discussed off and on for many years (Wiener 1997: 537-8). References to 'the citizens of Europe',

3. At present there are between twelve and thirteen million permanently resident third country nationals in the Union. The reason why they are excluded from EU citizenship derives from the fact that, legally speaking, only member state nationals are granted EU citizenship. For a critical discussion of this problem see, among others, Randall Hansen (1998), and d'Oliveira (1995).
4. According to the EC Treaty (Part Two, Article 8(1)), 'Every person holding the nationality of a Member State shall be a citizen of the Union'. The rights provided by the 'Citizenship of the Union' (listed in Articles 8a-8e) include, among others, 'the right to move and reside within the territory of the Member States'; 'the right to vote and to stand as a candidate' at municipal and European Parliament elections for residents in a member state other than the one where they are nationals; expanded diplomatic and consular protection; and 'the right to petition the European Parliament' and to 'apply to the Ombudsman' (Council of the European Communities, CEC 1992).

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'Community citizens' and 'a citizens' Europe' were thus frequent long before the legal category 'citizen of the Union' had been established.[5]

The first tangible initiatives towards the creation of the present EU citizenship were taken at the Paris summit between the Community's Heads of State in 1974, where a working group was set up for the purpose of studying what was referred to as 'special rights' for member states' citizens (Commission of the European Communities[6] 1993d: 1; see also CEC 1996a: 5). Prior to the 1974 summit the Copenhagen foreign ministers' meeting in 1973 had put forth a 'Declaration on European identity' which (although it did not explicitly bring up the concept of a Community citizenship) incorporated a discourse that to some extent would fit subsequent articulations of 'European citizenship'. Among other things, the 'Declaration on European identity' spoke of the urgent need to focus on the shared 'heritage' and 'to ensure the survival of the civilization' which the Community countries and the potential new members were said to have in common (CEC 1973). In 1976 the Tindemans Report to the European Council would develop and expand on these arguments and link them directly to the idea of 'A citizens' Europe'. Under this heading the Tindemans Report argued that in order for the Community to 'be close to its citizens' the 'values which are their common heritage' had to be safeguarded (Tindemans 1976: 26). It also explained that 'we', the peoples of the European Community, 'must build a type of society which is ours alone and which reflects the values which are the heritage and the common creation of our peoples'; a society 'which respects the basic values of our civilization' (Tindemans 1976: 12).

But the grounding of a 'European citizenship' in these self-assured and essentialist views on culture and civilization was only part of the story. Described by many as favourably inclined towards social reform during these years (Hoskyns 1996: 78-83; Hantrais 1995: 1, 5), the Community also included social and economic issues in its discussion of citizenship. In the 1976 Tindemans report, for instance, the goal of full employment together with ideas of economic and industrial democracy were discussed as part of the agenda (cf. Hoskyns 1996: 78-83).[7] As the powers over economic policy gradually moved to transnational arenas, it was argued, 'this problem should be solved at the European level by increasing worker participation in the management, control or profits of business' (Tindemans 1976: 25). The 'security of the workforce . . . and their

5. See e.g. Tindemans (1976); CEC (1984).
6. Hereafter abbreviated as CEC.
7. Similar statements reflecting such a reform-minded agenda are found in the 'Council Resolution of 21 January 1974 concerning a social action programme' (Council of the European Communities 1974).

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participation in company decisions and company profits' were seen by the Report as policy objectives to be managed at the 'European level' in order to 'restore to us at Union level that element of protection and control of our society which is progressively slipping from the grasp of State authority due to the nature of the problems and the internationalization of social life' (1976: 24, 28). '[E]conomic and social rights', as citizens' rights, were thus seen as matters which should be managed by empowered Community institutions. As a consequence, intergovernmental arrangements were ruled out as unable to deal with 'our collective needs' and the future social dilemmas of economic and corporate transnationalization (1976: 26, 29).

Even though the European Parliament pushed for the ideas behind the concept of 'a citizens' Europe' from the mid-1970s onwards, it did not spur much further action; this was partly due to an unwillingness on the part of the European Council (CEC 1993d: 5; Hoskyns 1996: 83). Yet what had been shown with some force was that many Community policymakers, member state politicians and, in particular, members of the European Parliament were convinced that if the Community project of further market integration were to progress it had to be able to enthuse the general public and so find a new and strong mobilizing argument outside the realm purely concerned with market integration. This what we may call the legitimacy argument for 'European citizenship' has reverberated with increasing force ever since.

After the initiatives in the 1970s it was to take almost another decade before the time proved ripe again for the question of 'European citizenship' to be seriously prioritized on the Community agenda (cf. CEC 1993d). What set it off was the European Council meeting at Fontainebleau in 1984, 'which stressed the importance of creating a People's Europe' and for this purpose appointed what was to become the influential *ad hoc* Committee on A People's Europe, led by Pietro Adonnino (CEC 1988: 22).

If we compare Community perceptions of 'European citizenship' as they were articulated in the 1970s with those put forth from the mid-1980s onwards there are at least two developments that need to be examined. First, during the 1980s the grounding of 'European citizenship' in an essentialist discourse of European civilization, culture and heritage became more firmly established - a development that I will come back to at a later stage. Second, whereas in the 1970s the Community held the door open to a federalism for social citizenship and was prone to emphasize collective social needs, greater workers' participation in economic decision-making and other ideas of economic democracy, the 1980s would be practically void of such currents. As stated by the Commission in 1988:

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> In a Europe without frontiers, where increased competitiveness and cooperation will go hand in hand, the individual and his actions will carry far more weight, both economically and socially. . . . At the same time, awareness of a Community based on common values and cultures will be boosted and will gradually reinforce the idea of European citizenship.
>
> (CEC 1988: 22)

Hence, within Community discourse on citizenship in the 1980s 'collective needs' came to refer less to the social domain and more to the domain of culture and identity. More than that, the professionally mobile individual and the 'Community citizen as consumer' appear in the limelight (CEC 1985: 11). The Commission writes that '[t]he goal should be an easing of rules and practices which cause irritation to Community citizens' (CEC 1985: 9), and then points to architects, engineers, lawyers, accountants and tax consultants as groups that need certain obstacles removed when they seek jobs outside their countries (CEC 1985: 13).

The 1980s should therefore prove disappointing for those who had hoped that the reborn integration process would nurture the federalist social citizenship goals of the 1970s. As Pierson and Leibfried have argued (1995: 450), 'the reinvigoration of European integration depended precisely on the emergence of an anti-social democratic consensus on economic policy within the major member states.' With the Single European Act then, the assertion from the 1970s that popular legitimacy for further integration was to be achieved through the creation of a strong redistributive welfare regime at the supranational level was discarded as a neoliberal deregulatory policy orientation became the prime mover behind European integration (Streeck 1995: 393, 412-13; see also Leibfried and Pierson 1995: 32; Streeck and Schmitter 1991: 149). Speaking with Ross (1995: 386), this meant, among others, that 'market building' won out over 'market correcting', leaving little or no room for the development of a strong social policy agenda at the EC level (cf. Ebbinghaus and Visser 1997: 199; Lehning and Weale 1997: 2; Streeck 1995: 395).

A de-socialized citizenship

Contrary to what is often invoked then, these changes in perception on the part of the Community - from a citizenship based on social collective needs to one based on individual market opportunity - show the extent to which European integration was bound up with the ideological restructuring that took place in the 1980s (cf. O'Leary 1995: 180). Rather than being immune to particular ideological and political leanings, the EC in

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the 1980s came to constitute both an arena offering new opportunities for ideological restructuring and an organ which itself took advantage of the new neoliberal climate (cf. Goodman 1997: 173, 195). This could be seen, among others, in the expanding lobbying efforts by a corporate community increasingly gravitating towards Brussels. In addition, the Delors Commission's close collaboration with the European Roundtable of Industrialists serves as an illustration of this (Hines 1997). And as Pierson and Leibfried (1995: 453) contend, '[t]he growth of business power [at the expense of labour] in Europe' has been 'one of the most significant political developments of the past two decades' (see also Goodman 1997: 195).

To contexualize further, it is of crucial importance to note that constitutive of the ideological battle waged by the New Right in the late 1970s and 1980s was an attempt to gain control over and thereby change the meanings tied to the concept of citizenship. As Moore (1992: vi) emphasizes: 'if there has been one central target for the New Right it has been the idea of citizenship.' In evaluating the outcome of this attempt, it is unquestionably the case that neoconservative and neoliberal forces have gained the upper hand, consequently generating an increasingly individualized and market-oriented perception of citizenship, where private interests are seen as better equipped to manage public assets and services, and where notions of 'active citizenship', volunteerism and charity are replacing commitments to universal and collectively sustained citizenship entitlements (Bottomore 1992: 70-1; Kymlicka and Norman 1994; Mouffe 1988; Rose 1996; Smith 1995: 191-2; see also Smith 1989). This is also a point stressed by Yuval-Davis (1997: 16-17) who argues that due to the past decades' appropriation of the vocabulary of citizenship by forces on the right, '[t]he balance of citizenship rights has shifted away from social rights of welfare towards civil rights of an economic kind'; or as one representative of the Swedish business elite put it: 'the citizens' new influence will not stem from their roles as voters, wage earners or members of an organized interest. Their power will be based on their significance as consumers'[8] (Nachemson 1998).

Part of the neoliberal attack on the welfare state consensus in the 1970s and 1980s has thus consisted of a concerted effort to change the understanding of citizenship as never fully realized without a strong redistributive social component. Consequently, the primary target for the New Right has been the institution of the welfare state and the discourse justifying social rights.

If this redefinition of citizenship along neoliberal and neoconservative lines unquestionably has impacted the American understanding of

8. My translation from the Swedish.

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citizenship the most, the development since the 1980s indicates that there are signs of this becoming the orthodoxy in the EU and its member states as well. The then Swedish Conservative leader Carl Bildt, for example, upon return from his 1995 (EU discussion) visit to the United States, acclaimed the Republican party platform 'Contract with America'. Evidently not taking notice of its exclusive construction of the model American citizen, its overt racism, sexism, Christian fundamentalism and contemptuousness of the poor (Cockburn 1995; Derber 1995), Bildt praised the 'Contract' for its commitment to cuts in social spending and its moral message to delinquents and 'teen-age girls' with children born out of wedlock (Bildt 1995a, 1995b). Similarly, Tony Blair has commended the 1996 Clinton-Gingrich 'welfare reform' (Thayer 1997: 10),[9] a 'reform' presently doing away with the last remnants of Roosevelt's New Deal and Johnson's Great Society, and which is in the process of establishing 'a virtually indentured labor force of welfare recipients' (Piven 1998: 72), forced to compete with the already working poor, and coerced into jobs earning less than the minimum wage, which in turn has led to massive layoffs and replacements of (often unionized) workers with cheaper welfare labour (Cooper 1997). More recently - and apparently disregarding the highly dubious claims about unemployment being markedly lower in the US than in the EU (Gans 1995; Thurow 1994; Wronka 1998)[10] - France's socialist prime minister Lionel Jospin and the then chairman of Germany's social democrats, Oskar Lafontaine, extolled American employment policies, the former declaring that Europe has a lot to learn from the United States 'in the area of jobs', while the latter depicted the US 'as a model of successful macro-economic thinking' (Vinocur 1998). By and large, these 'Americanized' views on labour market policy and unemployment also find an outlet in policy proposals from the European Commission (see e.g. CEC 1994a: 9).

Thus with the 'American solution to globalization' (Greider 1997: 369, 373) gaining momentum in EU-Europe, the analysis of how neoliberal

9. For a discussion of Blair's and New Labour's ('neo-Thatcherite') views on the concept of welfare and of what they have incidentally termed Britain's 'welfare reform', see Marqusee (1997).

10. Unlike their EU-European counterparts, American official unemployment figures very rarely draw any criticism concerning their accuracy. This plight - which is due both to an uncritical acceptance and an intentional black-out - has generated a very potent ideological weapon in the hands of those who argue that the only way to come to terms with the unemployment problem in the EU is to adopt the American formula. Yet, as Gans (1995) and others have shown, American unemployment statistics suffer from an extreme arbitrariness. Speaking of the US unemployment figures for 1994, for instance, Gans (1995: 107) argues - drawing from Thurow's (1994) and others' work - that 'while the official rate was then 6.4 percent, the actual figure was 15 percent'.

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and right-wing discourses are appropriating new definitions of citizenship to justify the relegation of large segments of the inhabitants to *de facto* serfdom - by, among others, turning workfare into a virtuous citizenship duty - becomes less exclusively US-specific (Jordan 1998). The so-called working poor (or those also referred to as suffering from income poverty) - counting approximately thirty million working Americans who do not make a living wage, are stripped of health insurance, vacation, paid sick-leave, and in most cases the right to form labour unions (Newman 1996) - is just one phenomenon which can be said to be getting its EU equivalent (Singer 1998). According to a French report released in 1997, the proportion of those in France on low wages increased by almost 50 per cent between 1983 and 1997, presently making up more than 15 per cent of the workers. This development was altogether attributed to a doubling of those earning 'very low pay'. The report also pointed to a sharply increased discrepancy between those earning the most and those earning the least in France (Singer 1998). A similar trend of mounting income poverty and of increased wage differences between the rich and poor has been detected across the European Union (Coates 1998; Greider 1997).

A market citizenship

Taking our discussion of the EU and its discourse on citizenship to the present - where the ratification of the Maastricht Treaty has formally established 'citizenship of the Union' - it is important to keep in mind that the EU still entertains a vocabulary which signals that its institutions have not bought the neoliberal concept wholesale. In EU policy discourse it is occasionally adduced that the Union needs to find a middle course or a 'compromise' between the 'extremes' of neoliberalism and the tradition of welfare state policies (CEC 1996a: 2; see also CEC 1994a). The adoption of the Community Charter of the Fundamental Social Rights - or the 'social dimension' - in 1989 together with the Maastricht Treaty's Agreement on Social Policy are put forth as evidence of this. In this context the Commission stresses the need to come to terms with social exclusion by means of a strengthened social dimension for the EU project, and that this should also be seen as an important aspect of 'European citizenship' (cf. CEC 1993b, 1994a). Moreover, the new Amsterdam Treaty is said to 'place employment and citizens' rights at the heart of the Union' (CEC 1997a: 1) through the promotion of 'a high level of employment and of social protection' (Council of the European Union 1997a: 54).

Yet, as Hantrais (1995: 15) writes, '[a]lthough a number of policy statements have been made over the years about the importance of the social dimension of the Community . . . there is little concrete evidence

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that European social policy is perceived by the Council as other than a handmaiden to economic objectives'. Thus, those who had been in hopes that the 1990s, starting with the Maastricht Treaty, would break with the neoliberal pattern established in the 1980s and embrace a serious attempt to make economic objectives compatible with the tradition of social citizenship quickly had their optimism put to rest (Ebbinghaus and Visser 1997: 198). Here the adoption of the convergence criteria tied to the EMU project proved to be a major source of disappointment, since these severely limited the scope of social citizenship provisions in the member states, including measures against unemployment (Coates 1998; Meulders and Plasman 1997; Woollacott 1996). Indeed, looking at the brunt of the EU policy discourse in the 1990s, one soon finds that the commitments to social measures are mostly modelled on and so subordinate to the imperatives of inflation control and other market demands.

The Commission's White Paper on 'Growth, competitiveness, employment' (CEC 1993a) serves as a poignant illustration of this. Because, while the White Paper is not wanting in statements supportive of '[a]n economy characterized by solidarity', 'the fight against social exclusion' and poverty (CEC 1993a: 15-16), it also firmly establishes that these social aims in no way complicate the White Paper's overarching neoliberal declaration. Prepared in close collaboration with the European Roundtable of Industrialists (Hines 1997), the White Paper comprises calls for a flexible labour market, a set of 'more enterprise-friendly' regulations, reduced labour costs and unemployment benefits, lower taxes, cut-backs in the welfare systems and overall public expenditures, and increased privatization (CEC 1993a; see also Leibfried and Pierson 1995: 49-50). This asymmetrical relationship between what we may term the rhetorical commitments to social citizenship and the concrete commitments to neoliberal economism also finds expression in the Commission's subsequent White Paper on social policy (CEC 1994a). In sum, and to borrow from Singer's (1998) characterization of the French prime minister Lionel Jospin, it seems as if the Commission 'wants capitalism, but not its logical consequences'. In other words, the Commission fails to explain how its social dimension objectives can be brought into line with the neoliberal agenda and the EMU project.

In more recent statements from the Commission the neoliberal message has become even more pronounced. In a document entitled *Commission's Recommendation for the Broad Guidelines of the Economic Policies of the Member States and the Community*, the Commission argues energetically for 'a reduction in the overall tax burden . . . in most Member States', seeing that '[h]igh taxes hamper economic efficiency, growth and, eventually, job creation' (CEC 1998b: 8, 18). The document speaks in

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favour of privatization of public corporations and of increased wage differentials in order to 'promote the employability and the adaptability of the labour force' (CEC 1998b: 12). It also argues for a 'Welfare reform' by way of 'tightening eligibility criteria, job search requirements and, in some cases, revising the time profile of benefits' (CEC 1998b: 18, 19; see also CEC 1998c; CEC 1998d: 11-12).[11] In yet another document - on the promotion of entrepreneurship in the EU - the Commission urges the member states to 'include knowledge about entrepreneurship in the curricula', and that they 'should encourage universities and research institutions to remove barriers which prevent the commercialisation of research results' (CEC 1998a: 4, 9). Even measures which resonate of propaganda are included, such as when the Commission goads the member states to 'involve the media in order to give entrepreneurship a more prominent and positive role in society' (CEC 1998a: 4).

A fragmenting force? A Union citizenship for the few

In order to analyse in more precise terms how the discourse on citizenship in the EU coalesces with the neoliberal agenda described above, we need to take a closer look at the strong emphasis which the EU places on the relationship between Union citizenship and labour mobility. This was touched upon earlier when referring to Commission proposals to have certain legal barriers removed to enable lawyers, accountants, engineers and other professionals to obtain work in a member state other than their own. Here d'Oliveira (1995: 63) notes that:

> the core and origin of Union citizenship is the right to free movement. Mobility is the central element, around which other rights crystallize. . . . This is not normally considered to be a political right linked up with democratic systems of government, but forms part of the fundamental economic freedoms of the European market: the mobility of economically active persons has now been elevated to the core of European citizenship.[12]

11. Similar opinions have been expressed by individual members of the European Commission. 'The Problem with welfare', said Stefano Micossi, the then Director-General of DG III's Industrial Affairs, is that it impairs market economy. It annuls the relationship between cost and utility. The unemployed does not have to seek work. The medical system neglects its duty, to cure the sick, because people with non-existent aches and pains lay claim on doctors' time and attention free of charge' (cited in Lundqvist 1996; my translation from the Swedish).
12. See also O'Keeffe (1994: 93-4).

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This is also a point that Lehning (1997: 179-80, 195) stresses when arguing that the social and political dimensions of EU citizenship have lost out to an 'economic citizenship' impersonated by the 'market citizen'; a development which is structurally linked to the fact that the Union project is primarily built on market integration and efforts to implement the free movement of capital, services, goods and persons.

This economistic understanding of citizenship finds expression in numerous EU documents. As set forth by the Commission, '[t]he first and foremost of the rights conferred on Union citizens is the right to travel and reside wherever they wish in any of the 12 Member States' (CEC 1993c: 15). Furthermore, in 1994 the Commission specified that '[p]erhaps the most important innovation is the free movement of persons: Union citizens are entitled to travel, reside, study and work wherever they want in the European Union' (CEC 1994b: 57). As of late, 'European citizenship' has also been (symbolically) coupled with the monetary union and the euro, giving rise to statements such as the following:

> Thanks to the complete elimination of foreign-exchange transaction costs, it will lead to savings and simplifications in the lives of European citizens. The general public must be prepared now for this change so as to pre-empt any fears it might arouse. In addition to its economic and monetary aspects, the introduction of euro notes and coins should provide hundreds of millions of Europeans with a material and concrete symbol of their common identity.
>
> (CEC 1998d: 13)

More than that, the Commission is urging the member states to have their schools campaign for the euro. As the Commission contends, the EMU project 'offers a unique opportunity for the development of European citizenship'. 'Teaching the euro in schools is a ''formidable opportunity to anchor the idea of European citizenship'' . . . showing its importance as a symbol of peace and economic well-being' (CEC 1998e: 5).

Articulated in this fashion one may very well argue that EU citizenship mostly caters for those approximately five million EU citizens (out of a total EU population of some 370 million) who live and work in an EU country where they are not national citizens (Dubiel 1998: 371; Naudin 1994). As such, EU citizenship represents a rather extreme form of particularism, where only a fraction of the population qualifies for any real sense of inclusion into the new EU-European space of rights and membership. Therefore, the frequent characterization in Community documents of EU citizenship as not altering or replacing the status and modes of national citizenships, but as simply 'complementing' and adding 'extra rights' for 'all' national citizens, needs some significant restating. Examined in the context of retracting and socially de-universalized

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national citizenships, EU citizenship might be better designated as a force possibly amplifying the social fragmentation in the Union. Kofman's (1995: 135) cautionary remark can thus be brought to bear on this problematic:

> Multiplying the sites of citizenship may seem . . . attractive, but we must be wary of producing a two-tiered system of citizenship: one for the 'poor', who are locked into restricted spaces with second-class rights, the other cosmopolitan and encompassing all of the levels for the dominant groups in Europe.

EU citizenship should therefore not, as is common, be written off as an empty concept not creating new rights and opportunities for people in the Union. Instead we should problematize the fact that these new rights and opportunities mostly address certain elite groups and not a larger whole. As Wiener and Della Sala (1997: 605) argue, we are confronted with 'a fragmented citizenship policy establishing special rights, not for Europeans as a people, but for special groups of Europeans in the process'. This provided, we can then talk about EU citizenship as granting new privileges to those who have been affluent enough to, in some sense, opt out of crumbling public welfare provisions and so depend less and less on a national social citizenship, while this same citizenship says practically nothing to those who cannot but continue to depend on a sharply devaluated national social citizenship.

Stretching the argument further, Holman and Pijl (1996) hold that instead of conceptualizing Western European integration as a process of state integration - which is the dominating approach - we should see it as a process of transnational class integration. The EU project, they argue, 'has created a space in which the bourgeoisies of the different countries have been able to develop toward a common position irrespective of the various national settings' (Holman and Pijl 1996: 56). The EU's articulation of 'European citizenship' in terms of rights and access to high street shopping, leisure travelling, and working and studying abroad can indeed be said to underscore this point.

Finally, in discussing the social restraints and the limited popular appeal characteristic of EU citizenship, Streeck (1995) sees this as a natural, even a functionally necessary consequence of the current workings of the European Union:

> A free European market, if this is all that it is to be, does not 'require' a 'Europe of the citizen'; in fact, citizenship makes markets less 'free.' As far as the completion of the internal market is concerned, it does not matter that

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> European citizenship . . . has remained limited to freedom of movement and contract within the integrated market.
>
> (Streeck 1995: 413)

Nevertheless, in the light of the recent global financial turbulence, and with labour, socialist and social-democratic parties in leading positions in all but a few EU countries' governments, there are also signs of a neoliberalism in crisis. The major strikes, protests and other forms of popular manifestations against what Pierre Bourdieu (1998: 129) calls the 'social costs of economic violence', which have been commonplace in several member states during the 1990s, are other occurrences testifying to this destabilization of neoliberal discourse. Antagonisms and controversies around what constitutes 'sound' economic policy and its bearings on the social are thus slowly re-emerging;[13] or, as one commentator put it: 'A spectre is haunting Europe - the spectre of John Maynard Keynes'[14] (Hedström 1998). Thus, even if the mantra of budget austerity, price stability, tax cuts, privatization and flexibility still looms large at the EU level, one must, given the recent developments, caution against making hasty conclusions about the stability of the neoliberal trajectory surveyed here.

A crucial addition: citizenship and the ethno-cultural dimension

Although Streeck and others have a strong case for contending that the logic inherent to EU integration as we know it can do without a redistributive social citizenship at the EU level, it would be a premature conclusion to view citizenship policy in the Union as solely pinned to the type of market citizenship outlined above. Much research only emphasizes the dynamic between these two ways of construing citizenship in the EU, and when concluding, correctly, that the social dimension gets marginalized, it also tends to conclude, incorrectly, that the entire notion of 'European citizenship' is reducible to market citizenship.

An analysis of the statements, policy documents and the range of information campaigns addressing the issue of 'European citizenship' - which have been pouring out of Brussels since the mid-1980s - clearly suggests that the EU has been urgently seeking a citizenship formula which would supplement individualized market citizenship. In other words, the EU is clear that market integration and the participation in

13. For a thought-provoking account of the growing criticisms and challenges currently facing neoliberalism, see Likić (1999).
14. My translation from the Swedish.

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market relations across borders cannot constitute the only manifestations of 'European citizenship'. As expressed by the European Parliament: 'The European message must concern Europeans both in their professional dimension, in terms of new opportunities and better living standards, but also in their historical and cultural dimension, in terms of values, outlook and a commonly shared identity' (European Parliament 1993: 10). Time and again Community policy documents spell out the need 'to assure citizens that "Europe" is not about economics alone', that the Union 'depends for its very legitimacy on its citizens' (CEC 1993c: 15); and that '[p]enalty for failure [to make EU citizenship felt] is that citizenship of the Union may appear to be a distant concept for citizens engendering confusion as to its means and objectives even fuelling anti-EU feelings' (CEC 1997b: 1). Thus, as these passages indicate, even market integration cannot do without some type of popular legitimacy if it is to progress smoothly. As the turbulence preceding the ratification of the Maastricht Treaty demonstrated, the EU seems aware of the fact that there is a limit to how much popular obstruction and scepticism the EU project can muster; or as Jacques Delors once said: 'You don't fall in love with a common market; you need something else' (cited in Naudin 1994).

It is therefore of the utmost importance to take cognizance of the fact that there is within EU policy also a strong collectivist articulation of 'European citizenship'; an articulation which appeals to a popular sense of rootedness in a shared culture, heritage, history and civilization. Instead of locating the quest for legitimacy in a discourse organized around the question of social citizenship and a new transnational welfare regime, the EU has come to put its faith in an essentialist ethno-cultural citizenship discourse in which membership hinges upon descent and ties to a historical community (cf. Kofman 1995: 128; Martiniello 1995; Shore 1993).

According to the previous Commission President Jacques Santer, the 'sources' of the European 'common cultural heritage - the heritage of the Western mind and tradition' - are 'Greek, Latin and Judeo-Christian' (cited in Lundgren 1998: 136-7). Similarly, the European Parliament (1991: 13) has outlined present-day European culture as derived from 'classical culture and Christianity'. These sentiments are also fundamental to the vision laid down by the current Commission President Romano Prodi. In a speech delivered before the European Parliament, Prodi maintained that Christianity constitutes the common consciousness upon which European integration is founded (Prodi 1999b). Other often invoked cultural characteristics and historical 'achievements' which 'European citizens' are said to identify with and celebrate as part of their common cultural heritage are those of the Renaissance, the Enlightenment, modern science, the Industrial Revolution, and the worldwide

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dissemination of European currents during the nineteenth century (CEC 1994b, 1995b; see also Prodi 1999b).

Convinced that 'culture and citizenship go hand in hand' (CEC 1997c), the Commission has repeatedly called attention to the need to create a stronger sense of cultural awareness among citizens, and to have 'culture' constitute 'a privileged field of action' (CEC 1996b: V, 3). According to the Commission, special measures should be taken in order to 'improve access to heritage and the supply of information on it for the public at large so as to contribute to the affirmation of a European citizenship through greater knowledge of heritage' (CEC 1995a: 13). '[C]ultural heritage', the Commission goes on to say, plays an important role in augmenting 'the feeling of European citizenship' (CEC 1996b: Part II, 17).

Essential to this ethno-cultural configuration of citizenship is not only the conception of culture and the community it denotes as something self-contained and objectively given. Engrafted upon the 'European' citizenry there is also an assumption of cultural superiority. In the Commission booklet *A Citizen's Europe*, for instance, Europe is portrayed as 'the cradle of critical reasoning' and 'cultural creativity', thus making today's 'European citizens' the beneficiaries of 'the intellectual resources they have inherited from a cultural tradition going back 2000 years or more' (CEC 1993c: 45, 32). This in turn, it is argued, makes Europe better equipped to ward off a decline similar to that of history's other 'great civilizations' (CEC 1993c: 31). Furthermore, as part of its suggested strategy of explaining 'European citizenship . . . in acceptable, motivating terms', the De Clercq Report to the European Parliament in 1993 claimed that Europeans are 'the envied focus of culture, civilization, intellectual life and savoir-vivre in the world' (European Parliament 1993: 27, 40). According to the Report, 'We are Europeans, and are proud of it. What is happening is that we are realizing our identity. In asserting our position in the world, we assert the richness of our culture' (European Parliament 1993: 33). More recently, Romano Prodi has embraced this theme as part of his programme, arguing 'that Europe in the course of its history has had a great heritage to live up to, a heritage which still forms the richest store of culture and knowledge amassed by mankind' (Prodi, 1999a).

Premised, as it is, on ties to a European ancestral estate, Christianity and other ethno-cultural markers, the definition of 'European citizenship' that comes to light in this discourse turns out to be a highly exclusive construct. To put it differently, it promotes, by default, an understanding of membership of a Union citizenry as something reserved for white populations, hence ostracizing the millions of EU inhabitants who cannot lay claim to the ethno-cultural heritage in question (cf. Hansen 1998; Kofman 1995: 128-9; Martiniello 1995; Painter and Philo 1995: 112-13).

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Indeed, as Shore (1996: 487) points out, numerous EU statements pertaining to this issue resound of old-time anthropology, thus perpetuating 'the idea of a distinctive, bounded region set apart from others by race, religion, language and habitat'.

If this excluding tendency within EU citizenship discourse is disquieting in and of itself, it appears even more so once we situate it in the context of the past decade's resurgence of a reductive culturalism combined with the self-fulfilling prophecies of Huntingtonian clashes of civilizations that now permeates so much of political discourse in the West (cf. Delanty 1995; Patterson 1997). Speaking as the authority he is, Huntington addresses leaders and policy-makers directly, calling upon them to exhort Western populations to acknowledge and act on the 'fact' that they 'have far more in common with each other than they have with Asian, Middle Eastern, or African peoples' (Huntington 1996: 44). Moreover, since 'civilizations are not only real; they are basic', the mixing of peoples from different civilizations is, in this view, bound to create enmities and instability, which in turn explains why it is inevitable that 'North African immigration to France generates hostility among Frenchmen' (Huntington 1993: 25, 26). Huntington also stresses that 'The European Community rests on the shared foundation of European culture and Western Christianity'; and that 'cultural commonality is a prerequisite for economic integration' (1993: 27, 28). But to reinforce and maintain this order it is, according to Huntington, crucial that the West - both internally and externally - defines, defends and demarcates its culture. Accordingly, 'controlling immigration from non-Western societies' should be a top priority (Huntington 1996: 45).

Similar opinions which lend support to animosities and discrimination towards the non-white and non-Christian populations in Western Europe have been expressed by scores of political leaders, various institutions and media pundits during recent years. We recognize it from the Pope's repeated appeals to people in Europe to unite as Christians, since, as he has phrased it, 'Christianity is at the very roots of European culture' (cited in Kettle 1990). Along the same lines, Dutch foreign minister Hans van Mierlo recently voiced his fear of an alien religious intrusion into the European Union, stating: 'A large Muslim state would pose a problem. Do we really want such a state in Europe?'[15] (cited in Jönsson 1998). The exploitation of Islam as constituting Europe's ultimate 'other', even enemy (cf. Haddad 1993; Rees 1997), also found an outlet in the former NATO secretary-general Willy Claes, who professed that so-called militant Islam had succeeded the role of the former Soviet Union in posing 'the gravest threat to western security' (cited in Rees 1997: 32). It is

15. My translation from the Swedish.

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worth noticing too that the conservative party group in the European Parliament, EPP, justified its opposition to Turkish membership of the EU by claiming that Turkey does not belong to the 'European cultural community'[16] (cited in Boqvist 1997; see also Kinzer 1997).

In immediate reference to the EU's ethno-cultural delineation of Europe, Neumann (1998) argues that this discourse has helped set the stage for a veritable cultural tug of war between those countries aspiring to 'join Europe', where each applicant country is trying to exclude another by portraying itself as more 'EUropean' than thou. Sifting the 'applicant rhetoric', Neumann displays how, for instance, the Czech Republic endeavours to assert its status as a truly 'European' nation by assigning Asian qualities to Slovakia; as does Ukraine in relation to Russia. In the same vein Slovenian parlance seeks to secure Europeanness for Slovenia by stigmatizing Croatia and Serbia as 'Balkan', whereas Croatian discourse, for its part, situates 'Orthodox' Serbia as outside of Europe. In like manner, Serbia - together with a plethora of other voices, one should add - can point to Bosnia's Muslim heritage as not belonging to Europe (Neumann 1998: 406).

This is certainly not to suggest that the EU institutions necessarily have any intentions of fuelling present hostilities towards people born outside of the ethno-culturally defined European 'stock'. Rather, the gravity of the matter lies in the fact that the EU embraces the same basic categories, definitions, concepts and general outlook on 'Europe' and what should constitute its 'natural' citizenry as those institutions and voices who do not stop short of defining the included - as is mostly the case with the EU - but who also explicitly designate *those who should be excluded*. Where the former fails to acknowledge the excluding consequences of an ethno-cultural framing of Union citizenship, the latter both acknowledge and endorse them.

`European citizenship' and the immigration and security nexus

Besides its pronounced references to economy and culture, EU citizenship policy is also bound up with a discourse on security. In this context 'European citizenship' seeks to gain legitimacy by offering its members a high degree of protection from various external as well as internal threats. As set forth in the *Consolidated Version of the Treaty on European Union*, the Union should provide for its citizens 'an area of freedom, security and justice, in which the free movement of persons is assured in conjunction with appropriate measures with respect to external border controls,

16. My translation from the Swedish.

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asylum, immigration and the prevention and combating of crime' (Council of the European Union 1997b: Title I, Article 2). Prior to this, at its Florence meeting in 1996, the European Council stated that in order to 'bring the Union closer to its citizens' the EU had to succeed in 'meeting their need for security, which implies improving substantially the means and the instruments against terrorism, organized crime and drug trafficking, as well as the policies on all aspects of asylum, visas and immigration' (cited in European Parliament 1997: 3).

However, the explicit coupling of citizenship with the immigration and security nexus is by no means a recent appearance. Rather, it should be analysed as part of a larger development, spanning at least the past two decades, in which international crime and immigration have increasingly been framed as signifying 'threats' and security problems of equal magnitude; and consequently something which the 'citizens' have to be protected from (Boer 1995; Huysmans 1995; Tesfahuney 1998). We recognize this from Margaret Thatcher's Bruges speech at the College of Europe in 1988, where she warned the EC 'that we cannot totally abolish frontier controls if we are also to protect our citizens from crime and stop the movement of drugs, of terrorists and of illegal immigrants' (cited in Gordon 1989: 8). Another case in point is of course the virtual panic that broke out in the EU during the winter of 1998 - triggering a succession of crisis meetings in Brussels and elsewhere - following the disembarkation of some 1200 Kurdish refugees in Italy. Here the then German interior minister Manfred Kanther declared that '[i]n view of this threatening situation, Western Europe must view itself as a security community' (cited in *International Herald Tribune* 1998). Kanther also referred to the Kurdish refugees as representing a 'criminal wave of migration' (cited in Schmid 1998).

The way in which the articulation of 'European citizenship' unfolds in relation to immigration and asylum thereby discloses another exclusionary strand within EU citizenship discourse. Here the underlying assumption conveys that the EU citizenry, in order to consolidate, needs to be assured that immigration and asylum, together with other matters brought forth as assertively related to public safety, are effectively checked at the external borders. To cite the Commission again: 'The problems of immigration and asylum, drug trafficking and other aspects of international crime are matters of increasing concern to the citizens of Europe' (CEC 1995c: 62). Likewise, in an information booklet which specifically addresses the 'European citizen' and the issue of citizenship in the EU, the Commission points out that since many 'are concerned about immigration, especially illegal immigration, thinking that this could increase once internal border controls have been fully swept away', the problem of immigration must be solved in a way that satisfies everyone

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(CEC 1996c: 13-14). A related concern among EU citizens, according to the booklet, finds the following formulation: 'Will the eventual dismantling of all internal borders lead to an increase in levels of immigration to my country, both from inside and outside the Community?'; to which the Commission can give a calming answer: 'No, it should not. The fundamental point about dismantling the Community's internal borders is that this process must be accompanied by the synchronized tightening of all external borders' (CEC 1996c: 15).

It goes without saying that the promotion of 'European citizenship' as a bulwark against extra-European or non-Western immigrants and asylum-seekers threatens to legitimize and so aggravate discriminatory perceptions and practices towards people with a migrant background already residing in the EU. This not least since we have seen that those held up as ill-suited for admission into the EU, upon entry would fall into the same domestic category presently screened from ethno-cultural membership in the 'European' citizenry.

Conclusion

The general thrust of the argument developed here has been that 'European citizenship', as it emerges from EU discourse, has mainly come to serve as an intermedium between a neoliberal economism and an exclusive ethno-culturalism. In its current articulation, therefore, EU citizenship can be said to comprise, first, a rights' dimension which is largely, though not completely, tailored to the demands of the single market, and which *de facto* confines its appeal to the stratum of resourceful inhabitants for whom the freedom of movement (and therewith attached rights) proffers real and ramifying opportunities, often bypassing constricted national outlooks. Second, EU citizenship incorporates an identity dimension of an almost purely ethno-cultural kind, which crystallizes around ingrained narratives on Europe's allegedly unitary and undefiled historical legacy and cultural heritage. Herein citizenship and descent community are conflated, hence delimiting EU citizenship to be inclusive only of those with primordial ties to a prescribed historical, cultural and religious community. Adding to these excluding tendencies, we have also seen how EU citizenship discourse becomes enmeshed in the immigration and security nexus, where certain categories of immigrants and asylum-seekers are often staged as potential security threats. By alluding to a presumed fear of external 'others' and internal 'illegals', citizenship of the Union gets promoted as a ticket to an increased sense of security and stability in the EU.

Rather than offering a context for an urgently needed discussion of how

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a trans-ethnic and trans-cultural identity and solidarity could be forged in the Union, the EU's articulation of 'European citizenship' has in certain crucial respects come to tally with various excluding discourses currently targeting the millions of 'cultural misfits' in the EU, be they 'immigrants', 'Muslims', or non-white people in general.

Finally, this way of construing citizenship also indicates that the identity aspect of citizenship has become absorbed by the ethno-cultural; that identity, in other words, can only be thought of in ethno-cultural terms, consequently severing the relationship between social rights and collective identity. This, I have argued, can be seen as contingent on a particular logic in which issues pertaining to social justice and redistribution - at both national and EU levels - are effectively removed from the agenda with reference to economic necessities, hence fomenting a climate where the building of popular legitimacy, cohesion and identity has to find other means for its realization. In the case of the EU, such 'other means' have been increasingly located in the ethno-cultural realm. As demonstrated here, this endeavour has come to impact the understanding of citizenship and its role in identity formation in a highly excluding and discriminatory direction, thus posing a grave problem for future ethnic relations in the European Union.

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